

Overall scientific questions.

Introduction

- Overview of the ISM. How dust forms, why we use CO as a tracer. Why we might use other tracers.
- Jeans collapse a model for star formation.
- IMF / CMF. How the high mass end changes. SF across different environments.
- Quasistatic turbulent core fragmentation as a model for star formation.
- Differences in methods.
- (Nico and Alessio) Literature on decoupling cores from clumps. We would like to know at what stage the gas decouples.
- CHIMPS paper and other extragalactic attempts at this sort of work.

The interstellar medium (ISM) is made up of primarily gas, as well as dust and cosmic rays. The ISM can be divided up based on temperature, ionisation and density, it consists of 5 main phases: the cold molecular medium (CMM), which is defined such that the gas is molecular with a temperature range of $10 - 30\text{ K}$ and a number density between $10^2 - 10^6\text{ cm}^{-3}$; the cold neutral medium (CNM), which is defined such that the gas is mostly atomic with a temperature range of $30 - 100\text{ K}$ and a number density between $1 - 100\text{ cm}^{-3}$; the warm neutral medium (WNM), which is defined such that the gas is mostly atomic with a temperature range of $6000 - 10000\text{ K}$ and number densities below 1 cm^{-3} ; the warm ionised medium (WIM), which is defined such that the gas is mostly ionised with a temperature range of $8000 - 10000\text{ K}$ and number densities around 0.4 cm^{-3} and the hot ionised medium (HIM), which is defined such that the gas is mostly ionised with a temperature range of $10^6 - 10^7\text{ K}$ and number densities below 10^{-2} cm^{-3} (see [Klessen and Glover 2016](#)). The focus of this work will be on the CMM.

Other than primordial elements, every atom formed inside stars. Therefore, initially these elements that make up the gas are hot and have not formed in their molecular state. To get to

the temperature of the CMM, the gas must cool. A star ejects matter throughout its life as stellar winds, as well as at the end of its life in different ways depending on its mass. As the gas moves away from its progenitor the number of ionising photons will decrease which will offset the balance between ionisation and recombination. At these higher temperatures the cooling from Lyman- α becomes important. The general form of the cooling rate of a two level system is shown below.

$$\Lambda_{ul} = \frac{g_u}{g_l} A_{ul} E_{ul} n_l e^{-E_{ul}/k_B T} \quad (1)$$

[Equation 1](#) is the rearranged form of 2.38 in [Tielens 2005](#). The formula comes about by assuming LTE and that the number density is much less than the critical density. g_u and g_l are statistical weights of the energy states, A_{ul} is the Einstein A coefficient of spontaneous emission, E_{ul} is the energy of the transition and n_l is the number density of the lower state.

$$\Lambda_{HI} = 7.3 \times 10^{-19} \exp\left(\frac{-118400}{T}\right) n_e n_H \quad (2)$$

[Equation 2](#) appears as 2.70 in [Tielens 2005](#). Above 10^4 K the exponential term stops being negligible which causes the cooling rate to rise rapidly. This alongside the recombination to form atomic hydrogen is what facilitates the transition to the WNM. At higher metallicities the cooling is not dominated by Lyman- α but by other fine structure transitions from heavier elements. Once cooled, [Equation 2](#) shows a ceiling for the temperature in the WNM above which the cooling rate can rapidly exceed the different heating rates ([Tielens and Hollenbach 1985](#)). A different fine structure transition dominates the cooling in the WNM and facilitates the transition to the CNM, the [CII] transition. The energy of this transition is 92 K ([Hollenbach and McKee 1989](#)) meaning the exponent in [Equation 1](#) becomes $e^{-92/T}$. This means that below 100 K the cooling from [CII] decreases rapidly. On the other hand, the first rovibrational transition ($J = 1-0$) of CO emits a photon with a rest frequency of 115.27 GHz ([Winnewisser et al. 1997](#)), which gives an energy of 5.53 K , using

$h\nu/k_B$. This allows the cooling rate of CO to dominate in this temperature regime and allow the gas to get to a temperature of around 10K. Even though CO is a more efficient coolant, [CII] seems to be a more dominant cooling mechanism at low metallicity as well as for diffuse gas with densities less than 10^3cm^{-3} (Glover and Clark 2012). This is partly because at low metallicity, the CO cannot be shielded by the dust and photodissociates by way of the ISRF. It is also important to note that Glover and Clark 2012 indicate that if the cloud is shielded from the effects of photoelectric heating then cooling from [CII] can allow the gas to get down to temperatures of 20K without the presense of CO.

Once there is gas at the typical temperatures of the CMM, molecular hydrogen can begin to form. Molecular hydrogen should form directly between two atoms of hydrogen but the Einstein A coefficient is too small for the process to allow for a photon to be emitted during their collision (Wakelam et al. 2017). This means that molecular hydrogen cannot form efficiently this way, therefore another mechanism is required to get the amount of molecular hydrogen expected. The process involves atomic hydrogen sticking to a dust grain and potentially colliding with another atom of hydrogen allowing for the recombination of molecular hydrogen. The energy produced by this is enough to break the bonds between the dust grain and the molecule of hydrogen, allowing for it to return to the CMM (Wakelam et al. 2017). This has been confirmed experimentally using various dust grain substitutes made of carbon or silicates. Katz et al. 1999 find that the peak efficiency of the recombination oc-

curs below 20K for both types of grain. The formation of CO is very complex (see Glover et al. 2010) and can involve different pathways, the simplest of which is the formation from a carbon atom and a hydroxyl radical.

Tracing molecular gas is important because it allows for the understanding of the steps that lead to star formation. CO is regarded as a good tracer of molecular gas for its abundance in molecular clouds and spontaneous low energy transitions, like the one described above. The idea is to trace the more abundant molecular hydrogen, which is not directly possible due to its lack of emission at the typical temperatures of the CMM. The lowest possible rotational transition of molecular hydrogen is at an energy of 510K (Wakelam et al. 2017). CO has been the gold standard when it comes to tracing molecular hydrogen, but tracers like HCN or N_2H^+ have been found to trace the dense gas much more effectively than CO. N_2H^+ is almost always being detected above column densities of 10^{22}cm^{-2} (Kauffmann et al. 2017), meaning it is much better at tracing the clumps where stars are likely to be forming.

Jeans

Project Work

- Motivations (link back to the lit review).
- Methods.
- Conclusions and what that might mean.
- Future work.

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